

Chapter 11

Deriving the Akkadian Stative: A deadjectival verb?

Iris Tanza-Kamil

The Hebrew University of Jerusalem

Recent studies on the Akkadian Stative conjugation have defended its verbal nature (Kouwenberg 2000, Carver 2016, Kamil 2023), arguing against approaches that have treated it as a nominal element (Huehnergard 1987, Buccellati 1988). The nominal argument stems from the Stative's diachronic origin as a verbal adjective (VA); synchronically, it is thus often treated as a denominal/deadjectival verb (Kouwenberg 2000). This present contribution argues for two separate trajectories of Stative derivation: Primary Statives, i.e., Statives whose base is a VA, are derived deradically, while secondary Statives, i.e., Statives whose base is a nominal or adjectival stem, are derived denominally or deadjectivally. I motivate these different trajectories based on mismatches observed between Statives and VAs derived from the same LEXICAL ROOT, pertaining to 1) the argument predicated by either Stative or VA, and 2) the resultative readings of Statives vis-à-vis VAs. First, I show that Experiencer-subject transitives feature mismatches in argument predication: While their Statives predicate the Experiencer-subject, their VAs predicate the Theme-object. Secondly, I motivate the resultative reading of Statives as a consequence of their derivation: Primary Statives inherit their change-of-state event directly from the ROOT. Secondary Statives require external syntactic or pragmatic cues to achieve resultative readings.

1 Introduction

The Akkadian (East Semitic[†]) Stative¹ paradigm is special among the Semitic verbal paradigms for its ability to be derived, in theory, from any verb, noun,

¹I use an uppercase “Stative” to refer to the conjugation paradigm thematised in the present paper and a lowercase “stative” to describe an aspectual property of predicates.



or adjective. Both its morphological and its semantic status have been widely debated in the previous literature with neither its verbal status unanimously accepted nor its semantic functions clearly understood.

More recent works on the form by Kouwenberg (2000), Carver (2016), and Kamil (2023) have provided evidence for the form's verbal nature, with theoretical morphosyntactic arguments made in Kamil (2023). Morphologically, the conjugation is made up of two components: a base and a conjugation-specific suffix. Thereby, two types of bases may be differentiated: a verbal adjectival base and a nominal stem base. In Assyriological terminology, a verbal adjective (henceforth VA) is the most common type of adjective. It is understood to be derived directly from the ROOT into the VA template, *XaY(i)Z-*. The VA's "verbal" nature derives from the observation that these VA templates are found across the verbal derivational patterns (D/INTENSIVE and Š/CAUSATIVE), too. It has remained unclear, however, whether these adjectives are deverbal themselves.

Understanding the VA and its syntax is imperative to understanding the Stative conjugation. While their derivational connection has been established before, most notably by Huehnergard (1987), I argue that the primary Stative is *not* a direct projection of the VA and its semantics, but rather a resultative verb. In other words, I argue against the *synchronic* treatment of the primary Stative as a deadjectival verb.² Apart from the forms' different phrase-syntactic behaviour, evidence for the dissonance between VA and Stative comes from the different arguments being described by the respective forms when it comes to Experiencer-subject verbs.

Building on the understanding of the conjugation as a verbal form, this paper now sets out to determine the more precise morphosemantic and morphosyntactic configurations of the Stative, by pursuing two main goals: 1) Arguing against a deadjectival treatment of the primary Stative, thereby providing the first syntactic and semantic account of the structure of Akkadian VAs and Statives, and 2) motivating the interpretation of the Stative as a conjugation denoting a resultative state, thereby accounting for the resultative nature of secondary (actually) deadjectival/denominal Statives.

In the context of the present volume on deadjectival verbal derivations in Indo-European, this paper further sets to provide a typological comparandum to a productive conjugation that appears to be morphologically deadjectival, but is (mostly) syntactically independent.

The paper is structured as follows: Section 2 introduces Akkadian morphology and the Stative paradigm. Section 3 then treats the primary Stative, outlining its

²I naturally recognise the diachronic origin of the form to be from the VA. How this apparent process of reanalysis came about shall not be thematised in this article.

morphology in Section 3.1 and syntax and semantics in Section 3.2. Section 3.2 is further broken up into a discussion of the relevant ROOT classes in 3.2.1, the suggested derivational analyses for VAs and Statives in 3.2.2, the motivation of the resultative reading in 3.2.3, and finally the placement of the Stative within the verbal system of Akkadian in 3.2.4. Building on the analysis of the primary Stative, I discuss the secondary Stative in Section 4. I again discuss morphology (Section 4.1) and syntax/semantics (Section 4.2) separately. I also present a survey of secondary Statives in Section 4.3 to further back the claim for their resultative readings. Finally, I conclude in Section 5.

2 The Akkadian Stative

As a preface to understanding the Akkadian verbal system, a brief introduction to the general derivational mechanism is necessary. Like all Semitic languages, Akkadian employs the ROOT-and-pattern/template mechanism for lexical word building: Typically triradical lexical/semantic ROOTS are inserted into so-called templates or patterns, which in turn encode word class (i.e., noun, adjective, verb, and in some cases adverb), Tense/Aspect/Mood-features (henceforth TAM), voice-features, φ -features (i.e., person, number, and gender features), etc. An Akkadian example of the variety of words derivable from a single lexical ROOT is given in (1), with verbal derivations given in (1a–1b), nominal derivations given in (1c–1f), and adjectival derivations given in (1g–1h).

- (1) Akkadian words derived from the ROOT $\sqrt{\text{srq}}$
- a. *šarāqu* ‘steal’
 - b. *našruqu* ‘be abducted’
 - c. *šarrāqu* ‘thief’
 - d. *šarqūtu* ‘theft’
 - e. *šurqu* ‘theft’
 - f. *šerqum* ‘stolen goods’
 - g. *šarqu* ‘stolen’
 - h. *šarriqu* ‘thieving’

The ROOT consonants š-r-q can be seen inserted in the same order in all the lexical items in (1) above. The *templates* into which they are inserted can be depicted as *XaYāZu* ‘infinitive’ (1a), *naXYuZu* ‘passive infinitive’ (1b), or *XaYZu*

‘verbal adjective’ (1g), whereby *X-Y-Z* refer to the respective ROOT consonants. This will be the notational framework used to describe templates in this paper.³

For the verbs, six TAM-encoded templatic conjugations are attested: The perfective (*iXYV_RZ*) and imperfective (*iXaYYV_TZ*) encode the basic aspects, the imperative (*XaYaZ*) and precative (*liXYuZ*) encode two moods. The two remaining conjugations, namely the *t*-aspect (*iXtaYV_TZ*) and the so-called “Stative” (*XaYiZ*) paradigms are more difficult to place within the traditional TAM-notions.⁴ I will suggest a placement for the Stative in Section 3.2.4 below.

The conjugation has been treated by numerous Akkadianists (see Buccellati 1968, 1988, Kraus 1984, Huehnergard 1987, Kouwenberg 2000, Carver 2016, Kamil 2023, *inter alia*) in the past, with the main scholarly arguments usually revolving around a) its verbal nature and b) its meaning(s) and function(s). Thereby, most of the arguments for or against its verbal nature were centred around the Stative’s morphological make-up.

While in most grammars (e.g., Reiner 1966, von Soden 1995), the form is treated as a verb, morphologically it is made up entirely of nominal elements, namely a VA base and a Stative-specific suffix as summarised in (2), which is itself also derived from nominal elements. The Stative-specific suffixes have further developed the ability to attach to, theoretically, any nominal or adjectival stem, too. This has led various researchers (most notably Huehnergard 1987 and Buccellati 1988) to analyse it as a nominal form.

(2) Basic morphological make-up of the Stative

Base + Stative suffix

- a. Primary Stative: VA + Stative suffix
- b. Secondary Stative: Nominal stem + Stative suffix

More recent accounts (e.g., Kouwenberg 2000, Carver 2016, Kamil 2023) provide stronger arguments for a synchronically verbal interpretation: Syntactically, the Stative forms appear exclusively in the predicate position, they may take verbal suffixes such as the ventive, subjunctive, and *ma*-conjunction, as well as arguments in the forms of accusative and dative objects both in bound (suffixal)

³Another important notion of Semitic morphology are the template patterns SIMPLE (G), INTENSIVE (D), and CAUSATIVE (Š). SIMPLE verbs typically mirror the root’s semantics, INTENSIVE verbs typically increase transitivity or intensity (i.e., ‘cut off’ vs. ‘chop off’), and CAUSATIVE verbs are, as their name implies, causative in nature. Onto these patterns three voices (active, middle, passive) may be mapped and all verbal conjugations derive forms in all template patterns. While they do not play an important role to the argument of the present paper, they will be referenced on multiple occasions. For the full system, see Kamil (2025).

⁴For literature on the *t*-aspect see Streck (1995, 2003), Hackl (2007), Brose (2019).

or unbound form. Finally, all Statives, i.e., primary ROOT- and secondary stem-derived, may be “middled”, i.e., it is possible to insert the middle *t*-morpheme into them to create medio-passive or reflexive/reciprocal derivations.

The latter argument was provided by Kamil (2023) alongside a new morphological categorisation schema summarised in Table 1, dividing Statives into “primary” Statives, and “secondary” Statives. Primary Statives refer to Statives utilising a VA as their base. VAs are derived *exclusively* deradically, through the insertion of the ROOT into a VA template *XaY(i)Z-*. Here, one may generally differentiate between verbal/eventive ROOTS, e.g., $\sqrt{wbl}$ ‘bring’, $\sqrt{mqt}$ ‘fall’, and adjectival/property concept (PC) ROOTS, e.g., $\sqrt{wrq}$ ‘(be) green/yellow’, $\sqrt{dmq}$ ‘(be) good’.⁵ Secondary Statives on the other hand refer to Statives derived from adjectival and nominal *stems* (i.e., pre-derived nominal forms granting no access to root-encoded information). Morphologically, this means that primary Statives will *always* be found in the same template, while secondary Statives do *not* conform to any one template. We will adopt this categorisation schema here, too, and address the question of the Stative semantics in greater detail in the following.

Table 1: Morphological Stative categorisation

Primary Statives		Secondary Statives	
<i>XaY(i)Z-</i> + suffix		Stem + suffix	
PC ROOT	Eventive ROOT	Adjectival stem	Nominal stem

The general semantics of the Stative have been previously described to denote a state of being (von Soden 1995: 126), earning the conjugation its name, though some scholars have described its function as a “passive” to the perfective/imperfective conjugations (Rowton 1962: 237, Huehnergard 1987: 225). This paper will on the one hand challenge and on the other hand refine these functional generalisations and claim that the Stative denotes a *resultative* state,⁶ making implicit reference to a CoS event preceding the eventuation of the state.

The following Section 3 will introduce the primary Stative, providing a morphological overview (Section 3.1) and a semantic/functional analysis (Section 3.2).

⁵I follow Beavers & Koontz-Garboden (2020); Beavers et al. (2021) in their distinction between PC ROOTS and what they refer to as “result roots”, although this distinction is restricted to change-of-state (CoS) verbs, whereas I will use the term “eventive roots” to refer to verbs patterning with result ROOTS, but with no inherent CoS semantics. See also the introduction to this volume for further discussion.

⁶Loesov (2012) has previously argued against a resultative interpretation of the Stative. I acknowledge this publication, but will not centre my argumentation around disproving Loesov’s.

Section 3.2 is further organised as follows: Section 3.2.1 will introduce the issue of different ROOT classes deriving different VA-Stativ patterns, Section 3.2.2 will then attempt to account for these patterns, offering a tentative solution. The resultative interpretation of the form will be motivated in Section 3.2.3, and finally Section 3.2.4 places the Stativ paradigm within the TAM system of Akkadian.

3 The primary Stativ

3.1 Morphology

The “primary Stativ” consists of a VA base in the template *XaY(i)Z-* and the Stativ-specific suffixes. The paradigm for the SIMPLE (G) template pattern is given in Table 2 below. Note, however, that the Stativ conjugation is found in the INTENSIVE (D), CAUSATIVE (Š), and SIMPLE PASSIVE (N)⁷ template patterns, too.⁸

Table 2: The Akkadian Stativ in the SIMPLE template

	SINGULAR	PLURAL
3. MASC	<i>XaYiZ</i>	<i>XaYZ-ū</i>
3. FEM.	<i>XaYZ-at</i>	<i>XaYZ-ā</i>
2. MASC.	<i>XaYZ-āta</i>	<i>XaYZ-ātunu</i>
2. FEM.	<i>XaYZ-āti</i>	<i>XaYZ-ātina</i>
1. COM.	<i>XaYZ-āku</i>	<i>XaYZ-ānu</i>

As mentioned in Section 2, the Stativ suffixes that are morphologically added to the VA base are derived from nominal elements. For the second and first persons, the origin can be traced back to the independent personal pronouns (IPP, Kouwenberg 2000), given in Table 3. The third person suffixes, though not traceable to the IPP, are nonetheless nominal in origin, too (Hasselbach-Andee 2022).

⁷Capitals are used to abbreviate template patterns. Especially the INTENSIVE capital D (for *Dopplungsstamm*) will be used in glosses of examples.

⁸For scope reasons, this paper will not consider further derivations of the Stativ paradigm, i.e., D, Š, or N Statives, though I am aware that the incorporation of these derivations is crucial to our understanding of the morphosyntax and the therefrom derived semantics of the resultative/Stativ. As it stands, I assume that these morphemes are added further up in the derivation and that their relevance to the basic mechanism of resultative/Stativ derivation is thus only peripheral at this point, though I may offer no evidence for this within the scope of the present paper. I, for now, refer the reader to Kamil (2025).

Table 3: Independent personal pronouns in Akkadian

	SINGULAR	PLURAL
3. MASC.	<i>šū</i>	<i>šunu</i>
3. FEM.	<i>šī</i>	<i>šina</i>
2. MASC.	<i>attā</i>	<i>attunu</i>
2. FEM.	<i>attī</i>	<i>attina</i>
1. COM.	<i>anāku</i>	<i>nīnu</i>

A VA is typically differentiable from a Stative by taking on a case marker, which is also marked for number. Feminine VAs additionally add a feminine affix, which takes on the (lengthening) number feature instead of the case-suffix in masculine forms. The paradigm, given in Table 4, shows that potential overlaps could occur between Stative 3pl. masc. forms with masc. nom.pl. adjectives, as well as Stative 2sg. fem. forms with fem. gen./acc.pl. adjectives. This makes their distinction not always easy. Syntactically, however, clearly identifiable VAs are distinguishable from clearly identifiable Statives through their phrasal syntactic positions: While VAs may be used attributively *and* predicatively, Statives are only found in predicative usage.

Table 4: Akkadian case marking on nouns and adjectives

		NOM	GEN	ACC
MASC	SG	<i>-u</i>	<i>-i</i>	<i>-a</i>
	PL	<i>-ū</i>		<i>-ī</i>
FEM	SG	<i>-atu</i>	<i>-ati</i>	<i>-ata</i>
	PL	<i>-ātu</i>		<i>-āti</i>

Examples for the morphological forms of primary Statives are given in (3) below, for now without their respective contexts.

(3) Primary Stative examples

- a. *gapš-ū*
 $\sqrt{gpš}$ ‘huge’
 huge.VA-STAT.3.M.PL
 ‘They are swollen.’ (CT 39 18:101)

- b. *amr-āku*
 $\sqrt{?mr}$ ‘see’
 see.VA-STAT.1SG
 ‘I have seen.’ (Lambert BWL 194 rev. 8)
- c. *nadn-āku*
 $\sqrt{ndn}$ ‘give’
 give.VA-STAT.1SG
 ‘I have been given (sold).’ (TIM 2 100:14)

3.2 Syntax and semantics

I argue in this paper that the Stative conjugation primarily denotes a resultative *state*. In other words, it denotes the state that follows a CoS event. Said CoS event, I argue, is implied within the ROOT used to derive the VA serving as a base for the resultative (Kamil 2025).

To illustrate, consider the following examples with the Statives from (3) in their respective contexts in (4). Example (4a) shows a PC ROOT in the Stative used in a conditional clause. The context indicates a situation in which the waters of a river are not typically swollen by a flood. Following the event of a flood, the waters rise/swell ($\sqrt{gpš}$), and the waters are now in a state after having swollen. The conditional then goes on to prescribe the appropriate reaction to the now-swollen waters. Conditional usages for the Stative are indeed common.

Example (4b) shows a Stative for a non-agentive transitive ROOT. The context here suggests that the speaker is now in a state of knowing what it is like to be under the influence or hold of the addressee. Finally, (4c) gives a Stative for an agentive transitive ROOT. The speaker claims to currently hold a state of having been sold, following a ‘giving’ ($\sqrt{ndn}$) transaction, which has taken place in the past, thus changing the speaker’s state to an unfree person.⁹

(4) Primary Stative examples in usage

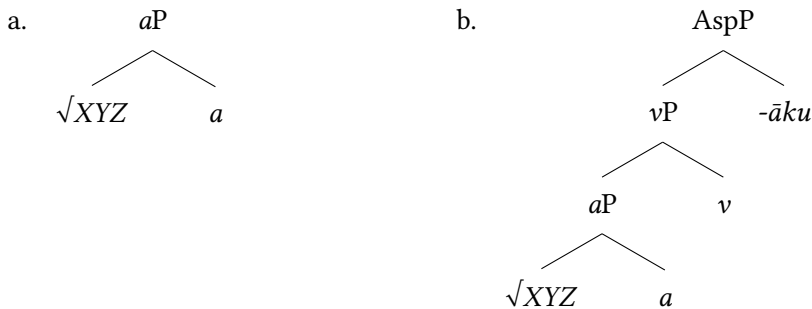
- a. *šumma magal* ***gapš-ū***
 $\sqrt{gpš}$ ‘huge’
 if flood.CSTR huge.VA-STAT.3.M.PL
 ‘If (the waters of a river) are swollen by flood.’ (CT 39 18:101)

⁹I will elaborate on the aspectual “post-perfective state” nature of the Stative in Section 3.2.4 further below.

- b. *šibit=ka* *amr-āku*
 $\sqrt{?mr}$ ‘see’
 hold=your.M.SG see.VA-STAT.1SG
 ‘I have experienced your hold.’ (Lambert BWL 194 rev. 8)
- c. *aššumi=ka* *ana kasp-am nadn-āku*
 $\sqrt{ndn}$ ‘give’
 because-your.M.SG DAT silver-ACC give.VA-STAT.1SG
 ‘Because of you, I have been sold for money.’ (TIM 2 100:14)

With the primary Stative *morphologically* deriving from the VA, one may be inclined to propose a syntactic structure for Statives as given in (5b) below, assuming that the basic structure for VA is that in (5a).¹⁰ The structure in (5b) would then imply that a Stative is derived through the verbalisation of an adjectival base, to which then Agreement features are added at AspP.

(5) (Preliminary) syntactic structures for VAs and primary Statives



A comparison with the VAs derived from the same roots as the Statives given in (4) quickly complicates this proposition, however. While the VAs in (6a, 6c) appear to describe the same argument as the Statives in (4a, 4c), the VA in (6b) does not describe the argument as the argument predicated in (4b): The VA of $\sqrt{mr}$ ‘see’ selects the Theme, i.e., the entity that is being seen, and the Stative selects the Experiencer, i.e., the entity that is seeing.

¹⁰I refer to the Agreement phrase as AspP, in accordance with Akkadian marking only aspect and no tense on its verbs. Given that the Stative is a conjugation and may not be combined with other TAM-marked forms, I assume its marking to thus take place on AspP, just like the *perfective* and *imperfective*.

(6) VAs

- a. *gapš-u*
 $\sqrt{gpš}$ ‘huge’
 huge.VA-NOM
 ‘swollen’
- b. *amr-u*
 $\sqrt{?mr}$ ‘see’
 see.VA-NOM
 ‘seen’
- c. *nadn-u*
 $\sqrt{ndn}$ ‘give’
 give.VA-NOM
 ‘given’

Experiencer-subject verbs thus demonstrate that a blind VA-to-Stativ mapping, either semantically or syntactically, cannot be upheld. It is perhaps due to the disregard of this class of verbs in previous treatments of the Stative that the direct and simple connection between VA and Stative was made.

In his treatment of the Stative, Huehnergard (1987) focusses his analysis on deriving the semantics of the VA-base of the form and treating Stative semantics as the projection of these VA semantics. He categorises three derivational patterns for VAs: “stative” (i.e., PC) ROOTS, “active-intransitive” (i.e., unergative) ROOTS, and “active-transitive” (i.e., transitive ROOTS with Agent-subjects) ROOTS. Huehnergard suggests that stative/PC ROOTS derive “descriptive” VAs (and hence also Statives), active-intransitive/unergative ROOTS derive “resultative” VAs (and Statives), and finally active-transitive ROOTS derive “passive” VAs (and Statives). His generalisations are summarised in Table 5 below.¹¹

Table 5: Semantic types of Akkadian VAs

Stative ROOTS	Active-intr. ROOTS	Active-tr. ROOTS
↓	↓	↓
VA is descriptive <i>idmiq</i> ‘improved’	VA is resultative <i>ušib</i> ‘sat down’	VA is passive <i>išbat</i> ‘seized’
→ <i>damiq</i> ‘is good’	→ <i>wašib</i> ‘is seated’	→ <i>šabit</i> ‘is seized’

¹¹For a comprehensive overview over the literature pertaining to the Stative see Carver (2016).

Four counterarguments can be raised against these generalisations. First of all, as was shown in the, admittedly provisional, structure in (5) above, I assume that the verbal Stative is formed at least through the derivation of a *verbalising head*,¹² and the Stative suffix, which agrees for person, number, and gender. This means that both morphologically as well as syntactically, the Stative *adds* to a VA base and should thus not be blindly assumed to be semantically equivalent to it.

Secondly, Huehnergard's ROOT-classifications are too broad and do not include the full range of derivational patterns found in the corpus. Most importantly, he excludes the crucial class of non-agentive Experiencer-subject transitive predicates (such as *hear*, *give birth*, *know*, *love*, etc.), which we have seen poses a problem for straight syntactic VA-to-Stative mapping.

Thirdly, while the pattern Huehnergard observed for the VA concerning stative/PC ROOTS may remain uncontested, the differentiation between the resultative VAs derived from active-intransitive/unergative ROOTS and passive VAs derived from active-transitive ROOTS seems redundant, if not incorrect. For one, Akkadian derives its passives by *derivation*, adding the *n*-morpheme to its SIMPLE (G) predicates, or the *t*-morpheme to the INTENSIVE (D) and CAUSATIVE (Š) predicates. The Stative, however, is a TAM-encoded conjugation, and thus falls under the category of *inflection*, which falls under a different syntactic domain. Crucially against the passive-claim, one may also add that a few Statives even appear in derivationally passive forms, i.e., the N stems.

Finally, the resultative nature of VAs derived from unergatives may be contested, too. It appears that rather than resultative, these VAs appear more aspectually durative, deriving stage-level predicates, as shown in (7).

(7) Durative VA derived from unergative ROOT

<i>ina šēp-ē=ya</i>	<i>lasm-āt-e</i>	<i>ina pašh-i</i>	<i>a-dūk</i>
	√ <i>lsm</i> 'run'		√ <i>d?k</i> 'kill'

in foot-PL.OBL=my run.VA-F.PL-OBL in spear-OBL 1.SG-kill.PFV

'On my running/fleet feet (and) with a spear, I killed (lions).' (KAH 2 84:124)

For present purposes, this means that while the overt morphological observation that Statives derive in some form from VAs may still hold, something more complex is going on in the syntax. It will be the goal of this Subsection to determine and motivate what exactly that is.

The answer, I argue, lies in the interaction of the lexical semantics of IDIOSYNCRATIC LEXICAL ROOTS with the syntactic construction of event-templates. This

¹²See Kamil (2023).

means that we must consider both the argument structural encoding of LEXICAL ROOTS, as well as the derivation of event templates for VAs and Statives respectively. Different functional heads, I argue, set different s-selectional requirements for the derivation of their argument structure.

I will begin by providing some observations on the relevant ROOT-classes in Section 3.2.1 and then suggest a derivation-schema of Statives vs. VAs on the interfaces of lexical semantics and syntax in Section 3.2.2. I will then move on to motivate the resultative reading and function of the Stative in Section 3.2.3 by drawing parallels to the resultative construction described by Levin & Rappaport Hovav (1995). To differentiate the Stative from the (Indo-European) concept of a perfect(ive), I will finally make several notes on the aspectual nature of the Stative in Section 3.2.4.

3.2.1 Root classes

The schema in Table 1 above has already introduced the basic split between adjectival/PC ROOTS and verbal/eventive ROOTS for primary Statives. This split is semantically motivated by the different VAs that are derived from these two kinds of ROOTS.

Beginning with PC ROOTS, Dixon (1982: 3f.) differentiates seven types of PC adjectives/roots, as given in (8) below. ROOTS describing these concepts derive VA describing stative properties, which are not implied to have been acquired through any type of change event. Their respective verbs on the other hand are always inchoative, describing a (usually) non-causal CoS process leading up to the state otherwise denoted by the VA, as illustrated in (9), with the G infinitive given in the (i.) examples and the VA given in the (ii.) examples.

- (8) Types of property concept adjectives (following Dixon 1982: 3f.)
- a. DIMENSION: big, long, wide, etc.
 - b. AGE: old, young, new, etc.
 - c. VALUE: good, strange, necessary, etc.
 - d. COLOUR: red, black, white, etc.
 - e. PHYSICAL PROPERTY: soft, heavy, clean, etc.
 - f. HUMAN PROPENSITY: happy, jealous, cruel, etc.
 - g. SPEED: fast, quick, slow, etc.

(9) PC ROOT adjectives in Akkadian

- | | |
|--|--|
| a. Dimension: $\sqrt{gpš}$ | ii. <i>warqu</i> ‘green/yellow’ |
| i. <i>gapāšu</i> ‘become huge’ | e. Physical property: $\sqrt{dnn}$ |
| ii. <i>gapšu</i> ‘huge’ | i. <i>danānu</i> ‘become strong’ |
| b. Age: $\sqrt{š?b}$ | ii. <i>dannu</i> ‘strong’ |
| i. <i>šiābu</i> ‘become old’ | f. Human propensity: $\sqrt{hd?}$ |
| ii. <i>šibu</i> ‘old’ | i. <i>hadû</i> ‘rejoice, become happy’ |
| c. Value: $\sqrt{dmq}$ | ii. <i>hadû</i> ‘happy’ |
| i. <i>damāqu</i> ‘become good’ | g. Speed: $\sqrt{hmt}$ |
| ii. <i>damqu</i> ‘good’ | i. <i>hamātu</i> ‘hasten, be fast’ |
| d. Colour: $\sqrt{wrq}$ | ii. <i>hamtu</i> ‘fast’ |
| i. <i>warāqu</i> ‘become green/yellow’ | |

Eventive ROOTS pattern differently. For one, their verbs do not behave as uniformly as the PC ROOTS verbs do. Verbs derived from eventive ROOTS may be of all transitivities, featuring all sorts of argument structural components, and different (aspectual) event types. A crucial commonality of eventive ROOTS containing a Patient argument, however, is their derivation of adjectives that entail change.¹³ Examples are given in (10) below, again with the G infinitive given in the (i.) examples and the VA given in the (ii.) examples. As shown in (10b), unergatives, which lack a Patient (or more generally, an internal argument), fail to derive a result-adjective.

(10) Result ROOT adjectives in Akkadian

- a. Unaccusative: $\sqrt{mqt}$
- i. *maqātu* ‘fall’
- ii. *maqtu* ‘fallen’
- b. Unergatives: $\sqrt{wšb}$
- i. *wašābu* ‘sit, dwell’
- ii. *wašbu* ‘sitting, dwelling’

¹³An exception to this rule is found in ROOTS of non-voluntary stimuli emissions, such as *stink*, *sparkle*, etc. These ROOTS derive adjectives that pattern with PC ROOTS, i.e., denoting adjectives that do not entail change. They do not pattern with PC ROOTS when it comes to their verbs, however, which denote statives, too. One may argue that the argument of these verbs is not a Patient per se, but rather a Theme, which thus prevents result-adjectives.

- c. Transitive with AGENT subject: $\sqrt{m\dot{h}s}$
 i. *maḥāṣu* ‘strike, beat’
 ii. *maḥṣu* ‘beaten’
- d. Transitive with non-AGENT subject: $\sqrt{\dot{s}m}$
 i. *šemû* ‘hear’
 ii. *šemû* ‘heard’

This pattern of PC ROOTS deriving adjectives not entailing change and eventive ROOTS deriving adjectives that do entail change is by no means unique to Akkadian. In their large-scale typological study on CoS predicates, Beavers et al. (2021)¹⁴ motivate the distinction of two ROOT types among CoS predicates: PC ROOTS, i.e., in our case adjectival ROOTS, and result ROOTS, i.e., in our case non-adjectival ROOTS. Crucial to our present purposes is their finding that PC ROOTS derive adjectives that do not entail change, while result ROOTS derive adjectives that *do* entail change, much like the eventive ROOTS (i.e., result ROOTS + ROOTS not necessarily entailing a CoS) found in Akkadian.

But so far, this only strengthens our case for separating PC ROOTS from eventive ROOTS in their derivation of VAs. When it comes to the derivation of Statives, however, we have already seen in Section 3.2 above that further sub-classification of eventive ROOTS is necessary. Consider the following Stative examples in (11) of the four ROOTS given in (10) above.

(11) Stative usage examples

- a. **maqit** *bēl* *mešr-em=ma*
 $\sqrt{mqit}$ ‘fall’
 fall.VA.STAT.3SG.M lord.CSTR riches-GEN=CONJ
 ‘(Even) the lord of riches is fallen.’ (Lambert BWL 80: 187)
- b. UD.3.KAM *ina bīt-i* **ašib**
 $\sqrt{wšb}$ ‘sit’
 3 days in house-OBL sit.VA.STAT.3SG.M
 ‘(You draw a line around a sick person’s bed,) he will stay home for three days.’ (AMT 88,2: 6)
- c. *Ḫumman-ḫaldašu šar* *Elamt-i* *ina mušlāl-i*
 RN king.CSTR Elamites-GEN in afternoon-OBL

¹⁴See also Beavers (2012), Beavers & Koontz-Garboden (2020).

$$maḥiṣ=ma$$

$\sqrt{mhş}$ ‘strike’

strike.VA.STAT.3SG.M=CONJ

‘Ḫumman-ḫaldašu, the king of the Elamites was struck this afternoon and (... he died).’ (CT 34 50 *iii* 31)

d. *pî* PN *ūl šamê-āku*
√*šm?* ‘hear’

mouth.CSTR PN NEG hear.VA-STAT.1SG

‘I have not heard (~ had orders) from the mouth of PN.’ (AbB 1 30:12)

In (11a), the only argument of the unaccusative verb ‘fall’ is the argument predicated by the Stative, namely the lord of the riches. As the ROOT derives verbs with only one Patient argument, it is not greatly surprising to us to find the same argument described both in the VA and in the Stative derived from this ROOT. In (11b), we see a rare example for an unergative Stative, where again the only argument available in perfective/imperfective verbs is the one surfacing in the VA and the Stative. Notably, the Stative takes on a non-resultative, durative meaning, denoting a stage-level predicate. So far, it thus seems as though there is no particular preference for Patient vs. Agent-subjects for Stative formation, although the event types appear to differ.

(11c) gives an example for the Stative of a ROOT, which otherwise derives transitive verbs with Agent-subjects and internal Patient objects. The Stative, just like the VA, predicates the internal Patient argument of these verbs. This behaviour is not unusual, if one compares with adjectives of result/eventive ROOTS in other languages, e.g., *beat* → ‘the beaten *path*’, *cook* → ‘the cooked *meal*’. What it does show us, is that given the two options, VAs as well as Statives, appear to s-select for the internal Patient object, rather than the Agent-subject.

(11d) presents us with a challenge, however: While the VA of $\sqrt{\text{šm}}?$ ‘hear’ selects for the Theme object as in (10d) (i.e., *šmû* ‘(Theme is) heard’), the Stative selects for the Experiencer-subject (i.e., *šamî/ê* ‘(Experiencer is in the state of having) heard’). The same holds for predicates with Experiencer-subjects and Patient objects, such as $\sqrt{\text{wld}}$ ‘bear’, which is given in (12) below. It appears thus that we are dealing with an allosemantic s-selectional mismatch between VAs and Statives in Experiencer-subject verbs.

(12) $\sqrt{wld}$ ‘bear’

a. VA
waldu ‘born’

b. Stative

awilt-um ... ana mutī=ša 2 mār-ī
 woman-NOM ... DAT husband.CSTR=her 2 son-PL.GEN

ald-at

√*wld* ‘bear’

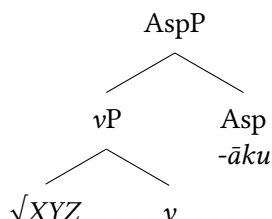
bear.VA-STAT.3SG.F

‘The woman has borne two sons for her husband.’ (AbB 7 106:19–21)

This allosemy further challenges Huehnergard’s analysis of Statives being projections of VAs. Despite the morphological similarity, syntactically, there must be two different underlying structures.

As hinted at further above, I suggest that the locus of this alternation happens in the syntax-semantic interface, more specifically in the s-selectional requirements of functional heads: While VAs are formed through the combination of a ROOT with an adjectival head, Statives are formed through a ROOT’s combination with a verbal head. Its form is then distinguished from other conjugations such as the perfective and imperfective at AspP. I summarise this in (13).

(13) Revised primitive syntactic structure of a Stative



Before turning to the mechanism of the s-selectional mismatch of verbal and adjectival heads in the next Subsection, we hold that given the different Stative derivations, the primary Stative may be further divided by ROOT class, as summarised in Table 6.

3.2.2 Deriving the Stative – From lexical semantics to syntax

Given the identical morphological makeup of Statives and VAs respectively, regardless of the ROOTS inserted, I currently posit no difference in the “higher” syntax, i.e., in the operations concerning functional heads such as Asp, D, etc. Instead, I suggest that the core of the Experiencer-subject alternation lies in the s-selectional requirements a functional head imposes on the ROOT it is merged with.

Table 6: Basic morphological Stative categorisation (revised)

Primary Statives				Secondary Statives	
<i>XaY(i)Z-</i> + suffix				Stem + suffix	
Verbal ROOT				Adj. ROOT	
				Adj. stem	Nom. stem
Unerg.	Unacc.	Agent-tr.	Exp-tr.		

Crucial to this argument is the conception that verb meanings consist (at least partly) of *event structures* and that event structures in turn consist of two components: *event templates* and *idiosyncratic lexical semantic roots* (Beavers et al. 2021: 2, but see also Dowty 1979, Levin & Rappaport Hovav 1995, Rappaport Hovav & Levin 1998, i. a.).

Event templates are constructed “from a small number of basic eventive primitives” (Beavers et al. 2021: 2), which define the general temporal and causal shapes of events. The event template is what groups verbs into “types”. The IDIOSYNCRATIC LEXICAL SEMANTIC ROOTS then fill in specific actions or states for the eventive templates of verbs. With the eventive template grouping types of verbs into classes, the LEXICAL ROOT is what distinguishes verbs within a class. The separation of these two components is maintained in both syntactic (e.g., bifurcation hypothesis, Marantz 1997, Embick 2004, Harley 2012) and lexicalist (e.g., Levin & Rappaport Hovav 1995, Rappaport Hovav & Levin 1998, Beavers & Koontz-Garboden 2020) theoretical approaches.

By the example of CoS predicates, Beavers et al. (2021) demonstrate that some lexical semantic ROOTS naturally entail change, thereby making a strict distinction of event templates and lexical semantic ROOTS difficult to maintain. In other words, some lexical semantic ROOTS appear to already contain the eventive “operators” that are introduced in the eventive templates of other CoS predicates. This information is contained within the ROOT next to the otherwise recognised θ -grids, i.e., the thematic representations that later on surface or rather dictate the course of derivation in the syntax (Belletti & Rizzi 1988: 291, see also Irwin & Kastner 2020, Kastner 2020).

Building on the notion that different ROOTS may have different effects on syntactic derivation, I propose to synchronise two tentative approaches to dealing with the present Experiencer-subject alternation: a “syntactic mapping” and a “syntactic filtering” approach. Regardless of which approach one follows, I maintain that the argument structural encodings of LEXICAL ROOTS play a crucial role in the explanation of the Experiencer-subject alternation.

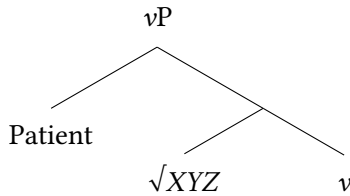
The ROOT classes discussed so far are given in (14) with their respective minimal encoding of the necessary arguments. Note that the difference between (14a) and (14c) lies in the unaccusative (14a) disallowing the introduction of an Agent.

- (14) Minimal argument structural encodings in the lexical idiosyncratic ROOTS
- a. $\sqrt{mqt}$ ‘fall’: $[\lambda x.\lambda e.fall(e) \wedge Patient(x,e)]$
 - b. $\sqrt{wsb}$ ‘sit’: $[\lambda e.sit(e)]$
 - c. $\sqrt{mh\varsigma}$ ‘beat’: $[\lambda x.\lambda e.beat(e) \wedge Patient(x,e)]$
 - d. $\sqrt{\acute{s}m?}$ ‘hear’: $[\lambda y.\lambda x.\lambda e.hear(e) \wedge Experiencer(x,e) \wedge Theme(y,e)]$

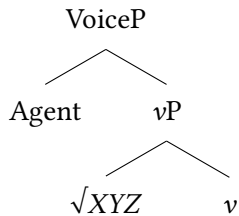
Beginning with the syntactic mapping approach, it has been argued before, for instance for Greek (Anagnostopoulou 1999) and Italian (Belletti & Rizzi 1988), that Experiencer arguments are syntactically equivalent to internal arguments with Patient/Theme roles. Belletti & Rizzi (1988) and Anagnostopoulou (1999) show that this is true for Experiencer-subject verbs (e.g., *see*, *love*, *know*) and Experiencer internal *and* external objects (Anagnostopoulou 1999). Building on these cross-linguistic studies, one may postulate θ -grids as in (15). I further follow Kratzer (1996) in introducing Agent-subjects at VoiceP.

- (15) Syntactic mapping of θ -roles

- a. Unaccusative verb

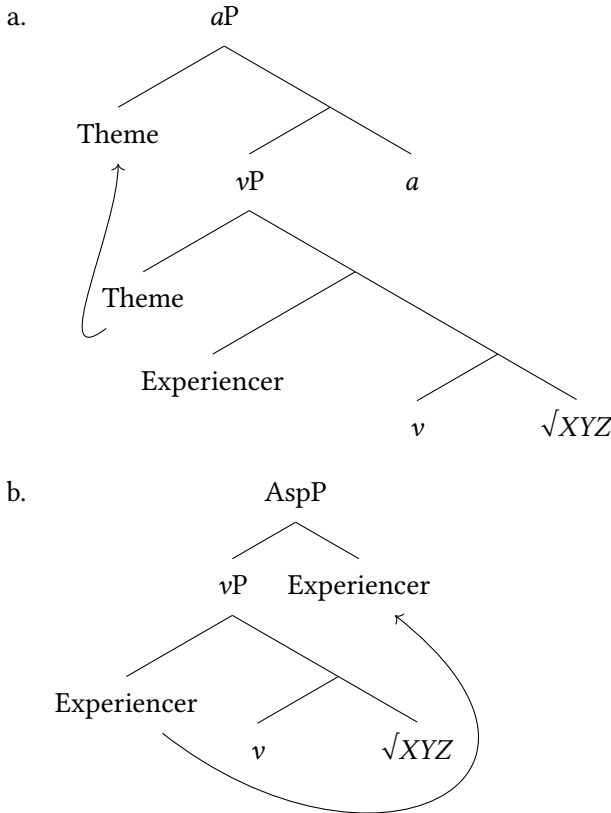


- b. Unergative verb



This means that one could potentially assume the VAs and Statives to s-select for their arguments as illustrated in (16).

(16) Syntactic selection of arguments for VAs and Statives



For Statives, this does not seem problematic: Derivation would go as far as the internal argument is derived and assign that argument its inflectional features at AspP. Assuming an inherent vP base for VAs is more problematic, however: Non-agentive transitive would derive two arguments within the vP with only the Theme predicated and the Experiencer left derived but not predicated. Underlying vPs for VAs are thus difficult if not impossible to maintain.

A modification to the syntactic mapping approach can be found in the filtering approach. I follow Irwin & Kastner (2020: 4) in assuming “that the syntax is free to generate syntactically well-formed structures, but lexical ROOTS can impose

semantic constraints at Logical Form [...]. In this way, the interfaces can be said to not only interpret but also ‘filter’ the output of the syntax”.

The core idea here is that functional heads select for the arguments/roles they require through an operation called “event-identification” (Irwin & Kastner 2020: 7). An adjectival head could thus specify an eventive template that deliberately specifies for a Patient/Theme to be filtered into syntax, just as we see. By contrast, a verbal head may set a more complex templatic event structure in which it will, as in the syntactic mapping approach, require the one role to be derived that fills the internal argument position.¹⁶ This of course requires one to follow syntactic approaches such as Belletti & Rizzi (1988), Anagnostopoulou (1999) in positing that Experiencer-arguments behave like internal arguments and transitive Experiencer-subject verbs derive their Patient/Theme objects more like external arguments. I recognise that an approach that assumes syntactic uniformity for Patients/Themes would require a more elaborate explanation for why Experiencers are drawn up to be predicated by Statives in particular.¹⁷

Thus, by assuming different lexical ROOT decompositions and different event-templatic requirements for different functional heads, we can account for the Experiencer-subject alternation. By contrast, all other ROOT classes appear to overlap in their adjectival and verbal head requirements: Patients/Themes are usually derived as internal arguments.

In summary, this Section set out to show that Statives cannot be directly derived from VAs, basing the argument on Experiencer-subject verbs. I suggest an analysis in which different syntactic heads set different event-templatic requirements for the derivation of their categorial type. Thereby, adjectival heads always s-select for Patients/Themes, while verbal heads rather select for internal arguments. The fact that Experiencers are filtered for the position of internal argument over Patients/Themes might hint at some ROOT-internal structure of thematic roles, though I leave this speculative point open for future discussion.

¹⁶A similar if not identical approach is attempted in Geist (2010) for Russian adjectives, which distinguish a so-called “long form” (LF) and a “short form” (SF). Thereby, the SF appears to be verbal, as our present Stative is, while the LF is adjectival. In Geist’s analysis, different functional heads set different event templatic requirements, too, accounting for the different syntactic and eventive scopes of the respective “adjectives”.

¹⁷An attempt to solve this issue, though for present purposes not further elaborated on here, would be the treatment of Experiencer-arguments as so-called “holders of state” (Hirsch 2018: 204). Statives would then have to consist of a more complex underlying eventive structure than simply being specified at AspP. But it could explain why they are particularly drawn to Experiencers who are “by default” holders of state, and filter them out of the root and into the syntax. This theoretical discussion shall remain subject for future work.

The next Section will deal with said further derivation of (16b), i.e., the primary Stative, and motivate its resultative semantics and respective syntactic representation.

3.2.3 Motivating the resultative

In their monograph on unaccusative verbs, Levin & Rappaport Hovav (1995) dedicate a chapter to resultative constructions, in particular resultative phrases like the phrases in (17), as a diagnostic on whether English syntactically encodes the difference between unaccusative and unergative verbs. Thereby, resultative phrases refer to “an XP that denotes the state achieved by the referent of the NP as a result of the action denoted by the verb in the resultative construction” (Levin & Rappaport Hovav 1995: 34). The resultative construction is thus achieved by *secondary predication*, wherein result state (underlined) and CoS event (bold script) are not expressed by the same syntactic node.

- (17) Examples of English resultative phrases *apud* Levin & Rappaport Hovav (1995: 34ff.)
- a. ... a 1,147 page novel that **bore**s you bandy-legged ... (P. Andrews, *Abandoned in Iran*, 28)
 - b. Well, the conclusion was that my mistress **grumbled** herself calm. (E. Brontë, *Wuthering Heights*, 78)
 - c. **Drive** your engine clean. (Mobil ad)

The resultative construction underlies the Direct Object Restriction (DOR), given in (18) below. This means that only the direct object of a non-resultative predicate may undergo the CoS said predicate would denote in a resultative construction.

- (18) Direct Object Restriction (DOR; Levin & Rappaport Hovav 1995: 34, 41):
A resultative phrase may be predicated of the immediately postverbal NP, but may not be predicated of a subject or of an oblique complement.

Following our syntactic analysis of the Stative in the previous section, we see that this generalisation applies precisely to the Akkadian Stative: Only internal arguments (i.e., the immediately postverbal NPs) are predicated by the form. Contrary to the English resultative construction, however, the Akkadian Stative does not rely on secondary predication. Rather, it draws both the result state as well as the CoS event either directly from the ROOT or from the underlying vP layer of its base.

In (19) we see three agentive transitive Statives for ‘pay’ (*eṭir*), ‘give’ (*nadin*), and ‘face/confront’ (*maḥir*). All three Stative forms are predicated on the internal argument of the underlying verb, in this case *šim eqlišu* ‘the price of his field’.

- (19) Transitive Stative example

šīm eql-t=šu kî kasap gamir-t-i
price.CSTR field-GEN=his as/like silver.CSTR complete-FEM-GEN

<i>eṭir</i>	<i>nadin</i>	<i>maḥir</i>
√ <i>ʔitr</i> ‘pay’	√ <i>ndn</i> ‘give’	√ <i>mḥr</i> ‘face’
pay.STAT.3SG.M	give.STAT.3SG.M	face.STAT.3SG.M

‘The price of his field, as one complete (payment in) silver, has been paid, handed over, and received.’ (Scheil 1927: 38, 19)

Similarly, unaccusatives, too, form Statives predicating the internal argument, as has been shown in previous examples, for instance (11a), but also in (20) below.

- ## (20) Unaccusative Statives

sutt-u ... *lu* *ħalq-at* *lu* *naharmut-at*
 √*hlq* ‘disappear’ √*nħrmṯ* ‘dissolve/melt’
dream-NOM ... MOD disappear.VA-STAT.3SG.F MOD dissolve.VA-STAT.3SG.F
‘(So) let the dream be gone, let it be dissolved.’ (KAR 2 339:22)

Now, following the DOR's requirement for an *internal* argument, it is predicted that unergative ROOTS, which derive their argument externally, cannot form resultative phrases, as illustrated also in Levin & Rappaport Hovav 1995: 35f. In none of the examples in (21) can the adjective be read as the result of the verb that precedes it. In other words, unergative predicates do not naturally entail a post-eventive result state.

- (21) Ungrammatical unergative resultatives (Levin & Rappaport Hovav 1995: 36)

- *We yelled hoarse.*
- *My mistress grumbled calm.*
- *The officers laugh helpless.*

Akkadian Statives appear to again more or less pattern with this observation. For one, VAs formed from unergative roots are rarer and also semantically different, denoting durative stage-level modifiers, rather than resultative ones (compare with (7) above). With the exception of $\sqrt{\text{wšb}}$ ‘sit’, which is more commonly

found in the non-agentive transitive meaning of ‘dwell in’, hardly any unergative Statives may be found in the literature.

One questionable case found is given in (22) below. Note also that a Stative-formation is only possible for the ROOT $\sqrt{\text{ṣ}ʔh}$ ‘laugh’ under its alternative meaning ‘be alluring, act coquettishly’. It remains unclear to me whether the ROOT is inherently unergative or rather a PC ROOT.

(22) Unergative Stative example

kê ṣīḥ-āku ana naḥš-i
 $\sqrt{\text{ṣ}ʔh}$ ‘laugh’
 as/like laugh.VA-STAT.1SG DAT lusty.M-GEN
 ‘How I entice (my) lusty boy.’ (KAR 1 158 r. ii 7)

We maintain thus that forming Statives from unergative ROOTS is problematic, though admittedly not entirely impossible. As will be shown in the discussion of secondary Statives in Section 4 further below, the Stative suffix appears to have, at some point in the diachronic history of Akkadian, reanalysed to independently attach to nominal and adjectival *stems*, too. On the basis of this pattern, I suggest that the very rare formation of unergative Statives patterns with the very rare formation of secondary Statives. Unergative Statives would thereby be derived from the lexicalised adjectival formations of these ROOTS and are thus not deradical.

In any case, for the formal motivation of the Stative as a resultative, we see that the primary Stative patterns with the syntactic generalisations made for the English resultative construction. I would argue that the majority of translations provided for Statives would also back up this claim, as has been shown for the few examples illustrated in this Section.

The core difference between the English resultative and the Akkadian one is the necessity for secondary predication in the English construction (Levin & Rappaport Hovav 1995: 54), while the Akkadian Stative inherits the CoS that leads up to the resultant state directly from its ROOT. This could also explain why primary unergative Statives are practically unattested: Their arguments are not naturally affected or changed by the event.

Statives inheriting their CoS directly from the ROOT might pose an issue for adjectival/PC ROOTS deriving Statives. As Levin & Rappaport Hovav (1995: 40) note, however, adjectival passives are known to form resultative phrases, too (see also Keyser & Roeper 1984, Roberts 1987, Stroik 1992), as for instance ‘*the spun-dry clothes*’. We can see similar behaviour with Akkadian adjectival ROOTS inserted into the Stative as in (23).

(23) Adjectival ROOT-derived Statives

- a. *ṣiḥr-ēt* *ūl eṭl-ēt* *ūl šārt-um*
 $\sqrt{\text{ṣhr}}$ ‘small’ $\sqrt{\text{?tl}}$ ‘be.manly’
small.VA-STAT.2SG.M NEG be manly.VA-STAT.2SG.M NEG hair-NOM
ina līt-i=ka
in/on cheek-GEN=your.M.SG
‘Are you a baby? Are you no man? Is there no beard on your cheek?’
(ARM 1 108:6)
- b. *maruṣ* *kabit*
 $\sqrt{\text{mrṣ}}$ ‘ill’ $\sqrt{\text{kbt}}$ ‘heavy’
ill.VA-STAT.3SG.M heavy.VA-STAT.3SG.M
‘He is seriously ill.’ (Goetze 1958: 68, No.43:16)

In (23a), Šamši-Addû, king of Upper Mesopotamia, scolds his younger son Yasmaḥ-Addû for his lazy behaviour, comparing him to his exemplary ‘manly’ older brother Išme-Dagan. In the context of the comparison between the two brothers, both kings of cities, both ‘grown men with wives’, the younger brother’s behaviour (though not out of character for the individual in question) is out of character for the expectations set for him. (23a) should thus rather be read as ‘Are you a baby now? Are you no man all of a sudden?’.

Another example is given in (23b) wherein the state of an ill person is described with two adjectival Statives. Two readings are possible here: a., the person is sick (*maruṣ*) and the sickness is heavy (i.e., severe), or b., the person has become sick and as a result quite severe or difficult to treat. Both Statives appear to affect each other.

As far as the syntactic behaviour of the adjectival Statives can be addressed, Levin & Rappaport Hovav (1995: 40) suggest that a verb’s direct internal argument undergoes lexical externalisation in the formation of adjectival passives, a process that appears to happen for Akkadian VAs, too, and therefore also manifests in their respective Stative formation, given the similarity between the syntactic processes of the two constructions.

As with the result ROOTS, PC ROOTS indicate the CoS event by themselves, e.g. ‘become red’, ‘become sick’, etc. As noted by Levin & Rappaport Hovav (1995: 54), but also by Dowty (1979), Pustejovsky (1991), Grimshaw & Vikner (1993), the activity denoted in an independently derived verb (i.e., *not* in the resultative) is the CoS event leading to the eventuation of the state denoted by the resultative.

Based on the discussions of the past two Subsections, I now revise the categorisation schema given in Table 6 once more into the schema in Table 7.

Table 7: Basic morphological Stative categorisation (revised again)

Primary Statives				Secondary Statives	
$XaY(i)Z-$ + suffix				Stem + suffix	
Verbal ROOT			Adj. ROOT	Adj. stem	Nom. stem
Unerg.	Unacc.	Agent.-tr.	Exp.		
No Stat.		Root-inherited CoS			

To summarise, this section attempted to motivate the resultative nature of the Stative by drawing on syntactic parallels to the English resultative construction as well as presenting case examples for the resultative contexts the form appears in. A final important argument for the Stative’s resultative nature will be made in the next Section 3.2.4, to separate it from what linguists may suspect a “perfect” conjugation to be. As Beavers et al. (2021: 3) note, an important component of CoS events is their interaction with a given verb’s temporal features (see also Hay et al. 1999, Kennedy & Levin 2008, Beavers 2012). For a resultative state to come into being, it must be inherently associated with a *preceding* CoS event that has led to the eventuation of said resultative state. This association of a completed event and a subsequent state that follows as a direct consequence of the event is a property often ascribed to perfects. As I will show in the next section, Statives are not perfects, however.

3.2.4 Notes on the aspectual position of the Stative

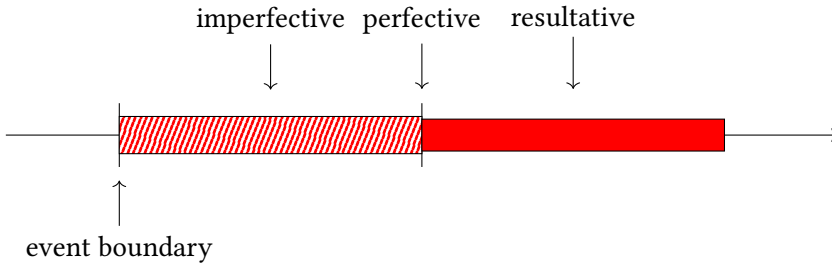
As was shown in various previous studies before (e.g., Cohen 1984), the Akkadian Stative is diachronically related to the Semitic perfect. It is thus a valid thought to consider the conjugation a perfect, rather than resultative/Stative.

I argue against this categorisation of the conjugation on the basis of the greater aspectual system of Akkadian, as outlined in Kamil (2025), Tanza-Kamil (In preparation). Imperfective, perfective, and Stative are seen here to be the three core aspect conjugations employed in Akkadian, with the perfective serving as a type of alternant to imperfective and Stative respectively.

The imperfective denotes an ongoing dynamic event. It is contrasted with the perfective, which denotes a punctual or completed event. The perfective implies a resultant state to come about from the completion of its denoted event. The perfective then again is contrasted with the Stative/resultative, which denotes a

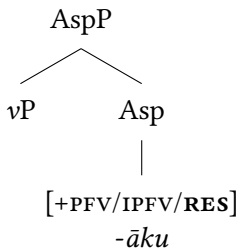
static state, implied to have resulted from a preceding completed event. This is illustrated in (24).

(24) Aspectual frames in Akkadian



The core idea here is that the imperfective and the perfective both denote *events*, but while one focuses on an event's eventuation, the other focuses on its completion. The perfective and the Stative both entail an event leading to a CoS and a resultant state, but while the perfective denotes the event and implies the state, the Stative denotes the state and implies the event. On the basis of these alternations, I treat imperfective, perfective, and Stative as alternants on AspP, as illustrated in (25). For further elaboration, I refer the reader to Tanza-Kamil (In preparation).

(25) Higher structure of the Stative



With the primary Stative now covered, I move on to incorporate the secondary Stative into this theory.

4 The secondary Stative

4.1 Morphology

The secondary Stative is made up of a nominal/adjectival stem and the Stative-specific suffixes, (26). This means that the base of the secondary Stative is not

derived deradically and does not conform to any one template. Crucially, this differentiates them from primary Statives in that secondary Statives are, in fact, deadjectival/denominal.

- (26) Basic morphological make-up of the secondary Stative:
nominal/adjectival stem + Stative suffix

Examples of the secondary Stative are given in bold script in (27). Morphologically, there appear to be no restrictions as to what may be Stativised. Next to the primary Statives in (27a) (e.g., in *na²du* ‘praised; famous’, *gašru* ‘strong’, and *kabtu* ‘heavy’, and the INTENSIVE VA *šurruḫu* ‘glorious’) we see a non-VA adjective (*ašaridu* ‘supreme’) and two nouns, *šarru* ‘king’ and *bēlu* ‘lord’, form secondary Statives.

- ## (27) Secondary Stative examples

- a. *šarr-āku* *bēl-āku* *naʔd-āku* *gašr-āku*
king-STAT.1SG lord-STAT.1SG praised.VA-STAT.1SG strong.VA-STAT.1SG
kabt-āku *šurruḥ-āku* *ašarid-āku*
√*kbt* ‘heavy’ √*šrḥ* ‘glorious’
heavy.VA-STAT.1SG D.glorious.VA-STAT.1SG supreme-STAT.1SG
‘I am king, I am lord, I am famous, I am strong, I am important, I am
glorious, I am supreme.’ (RIMA 2 A.0.101.1 i 32)
- b. *šumma sinništ-u* *karš-i* *libb-i* *raš-at*
if woman-NOM belly-OBL inside-OBL acquire.VA-STAT.3SG.F
ilān-ât
godly-STAT.3SG.F
‘If a woman has a round belly, she is lucky.’ (KAR 2 206 ii 6’)

As will be discussed in Section 4.3, the present study found there to be no morphological restrictions as to which adjectives could be Stativised. This means that no particular template, consonant count, or amount of derivational affixes on an adjectival stem prevent it from taking the Stative suffix. As an example, (27b) features the adjective *ilānû* ‘favoured by god’, itself made up of three elements: *il-* ‘god’, *-ān-*, an adverbial/adjectival derivational suffix, and *-î-*, an adjectival derivational suffix, which can be seen “merging” with the following vowel of the Stative suffix *-at*.

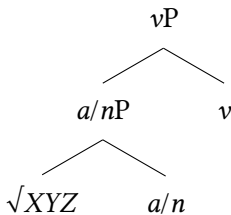
This pattern generally indicates a full reanalysis of the Stative suffix to productively verbalise, in principle, any lexical stem, making the secondary Stative a definitely deadjectival/denominal verb.¹⁸ While no such morphological statements may be made for the Stativisation of nouns yet, it is reasonable to assume similar patterns to be found with nouns, too.

4.2 The problem of semantics

Secondary Statives being deadjectival/denominal implies that, unlike primary Statives, they do not contain an eventive *vP* at their base. This is insofar a problem for our analysis of all Statives as resultative states as secondary Statives have no eventive base to draw their CoS event from.

As I argued in Kamil (2023), secondary Statives can nevertheless be shown to be verbal, as evidenced by their syntactic clause-final position,¹⁹ their combination with verbal suffixes such as the subjunctive and *ma*-conjunction, and their ability to be “middled”. Moreover, they may not be used attributively, but rather only predicatively. Based on these morphological and syntactic generalisation, one may thus postulate the following primitive structure for secondary Statives, as given in (28).

(28) Primitive secondary Stative structure



The question now is how a secondary Stative may license resultative readings if it may not provide a CoS event itself. In most occasions found, secondary Statives appear in contexts that imply externally caused CoS resulting in the described state. For instance, in (27a) above, an excerpt from an Aššurnasirpal-inscription, the king highlights a decree that was proclaimed following his coronation (Aššurnasirpal II 1: i 31ff.), indicating that prior to this speech, he was not in fact king, lord, famous, important, glorious, or supreme. Among the many attributes, *šarrāku* ‘I am king’, *bēlāku* ‘I am lord’, and *ašaridāku* ‘I am supreme’ are

¹⁸I attempt no hypothesis as to when or how this reanalysis came about.

¹⁹Akkadian is generally very strictly SOV. In epic literature, VSO is often found, in which case Statives appear in clause-initial position.

secondary Statives. Through the context they are used in, potentially strengthened by the parallelism with the primary Statives in the same phrase, they, too, receive a resultative reading.

Two modal examples of usage are given in (29) below. Especially (29a) provides a good parallel: The adjective *imnû* ‘(on the) right’ is derived from *imnu* ‘right’ + *-î*, an adjectival suffix. While the observations about the gall bladder are being made, note that *imnû* is being used in its regular adjectival form. Only once the practitioner has established a knowledge of the gall bladder’s position, is the adjective Stativised within a statement made about the gall bladder’s position. In other words, the CoS event is the practitioner’s understanding of the gall bladder’s state.

(29) Secondary Statives headed by *šumma* ‘if’

- a. *šumma mart-u imn-û ina panî=ka*
 if gall.bladder-NOM right-NOM in/at face.GEN=your.SG.M
mazzāz-u padān-u ... imnû mart-i
 station-NOM path-NOM right.CSTR gall.bladder-GEN
šakn-û=ma mart-u imn-ât
 √škn ‘put’
 put.VA-STAT.3PL.M=CONJ gall.bladder-NOM right-STAT.3SG.F
ta-qabbi-Ø
 √qb? ‘speak’
 2-speak.IPFV-SG.M

‘If the gall bladder is right-side up (?) before you and the “station”, the “path” (and other ominous parts) (all) lie at the right side of the gall bladder, you may say “the gall bladder is right” (i.e. favourable).’ (CT 28 46:5f.)

- b. *šumma šeḥr-u NE (lā) ḥaḥḥaš*
 if small-NOM fever NEG hot.STAT.3SG.M

‘If the temperature of a small child is not very high, (his intestines are constricted, the *bu[?]šānu* disease has seized him).’ (Labat TDP 228:101)

It is notable that many, if not most (adjectival) secondary Statives are found in modal phrases headed by either *šumma* ‘if’ or the precativ marker *lu* ‘may’. Two examples for Statives headed by *lu* are given in (30).

(30) Statives headed by *lu*

- a. *lu balṭ-āta* *lu šalm-āta* *lu*
 √*blṭ* ‘live’ √*šlm* ‘whole/complete’ MOD
 MOD live.VA-STAT.2SG.M MOD whole/complete.VA-STAT.2SG.M
 dari-āta
 everlasting-STAT.2SG.M
 ‘May you live, may you be healthy, may you (~ ‘your life’) be
 everlasting.’ (YOS 2 119:7)
- b. *tālitt-i* *alp-ē=ka* *lu kayān-at*
 calving.F-OBL cattle-PL.OBL=your.SG.M. may constant-STAT.3SG.F
 ‘May the calving of your cattle be normal.’ (Sidersky 1920: 568, 20)

The modal contexts here imply that the imagined/pre-conceived state has not yet been achieved. This means that between the time of speech and the possible described state, a CoS event can be presumed to happen. I thus suggest that secondary Statives license their resultativity by inheriting their CoS event from the context of the utterance they appear in. This happens most commonly syntactically, through modal particles/complementisers.

To highlight the resultative nature of the secondary Statives one may also draw a comparison with similar utterances utilising predicative adjectives, as in (31). Just like in (27a), (31) gives a number of predicative adjectives, but while in (27a), the adjectives describe a newly crowned Aššurnasirpal, the adjectives in (31) describe a deity whose state of having these attributes is not new but has always been true.²⁰

- (31) *anāku Asalluḫi dabr-u* *šagapūr-u* *bēl-u* *ša māt-i*
 I Asalluḫi fierce-NOM majestic-NOM lord-NOM REL land-GEN
 ‘I am Asalluḫi, fierce, majestic, lord of the land.’ (Lambert 1954: 313, C 8)

In order to verify these assumptions, I conducted a small study on adjectival secondary Statives. The following section will show that among the adjectives surveyed, less than 40 derived secondary Statives. Among those, almost all Statives were found in modal contexts.

²⁰The addition of the IPP *anāku* is not, however, a diagnostic for the predicative use of adjectives as it is very well also found with verbs, including Statives, as a means of emphasis. Note that Akkadian is a pro-drop language and thus does not require the utterance of pronominal subjects.

4.3 Adjectival derivations

4.3.1 Akkadian adjective formation

Akkadian adjective formation can be categorized into three general types: non-concatenative, concatenative, and other. Non-concatenative adjectival derivation refers to the root-and-template derivation mechanism wherein a usually triradical ROOT XYZ is inserted into a template. Concatenative derivations refer to derivations wherein derivational suffixes are added to a typically nominal, adjectival, or adverbial stem to derive adjectives. Finally, the category “other” refers to loans and contractions of multiple elements that have been lexicalised as adjectives.

The non-concatenative derivation method is by far the most common one in Akkadian. It comprises all VAs in all template patterns (SIMPLE, INTENSIVE, CAUSATIVE) and voices (active, middle, passive). The general paradigm of the VA bases for the 3SG.M is given in Table 8. But the non-concatenative adjectives include also (lexicalised) participles (e.g. *XāYiZ-*), SIMPLE adjectives derived with “intensive” doubling of the middle radical (e.g. *XaYYiZ-*), and other templates featuring attested roots.

Table 8: VA paradigm

	SIMPLE	INTENSIVE	CAUSATIVE
Active	<i>XaY(i)Z-</i>	<i>XuYYuZ-</i>	<i>šuXYuZ-</i>
Middle	<i>XitYuZ-</i>	<i>XutaYYuZ-</i>	<i>šutaXYuZ-</i>
Passive	<i>naXYuZ-</i>		

The concatenative derivations are mostly derived with the standard adjectival suffix *-ī*, or with the adverbial-adjectival suffix *-ān-*. Combinations of the two are also attested, thereby always in the order *-ān-ī-*. More rarely, the nominal suffix *-i-* (fem. *īt-*) is also attested to derive adjectives, mostly of the numerical type.

Finally, Akkadian features a number of adjectives from mostly Sumerian, Hurrian, Elamite, or Hittite, but also Amorite, Egyptian, and Kassite origin. These adjectives typically do not conform to any templatic forms, nor do they tend to feature the derivational suffixes described above. Very few adjectives are derived from contractions of two or more lexical elements, as for instance *laššu* ‘absent’ < *lā* ‘no(t)’ + *išū* ‘is’.

4.3.2 Survey of adjectival statives

The present study intended to shed light on two questions, supplementing the semantic discussion of the secondary Stative: 1) Can any nominal element be Stativised?, and 2) how is the resultativity of secondary Statives licensed?

As a first step, all adjectives listed in the *Concise Dictionary of Akkadian* (CDA) were extracted according to the following set of diagnostics: a) Adjectives that conform to the VA templates or any of the other known templates outlined in von Soden (1995), b) adjectives that agree with the noun they describe in terms of case and φ -features, and c) adjectives that follow nouns and precede verbs in non-predicative usages. Following the clearance of faulty entries, the total count of adjectives in the CDA amounted to 1433 adjectives.

The adjectives were then sorted according to the following set of parameters: their template, whether they are primary or secondary adjectives, whether or not they are VA, whether or not they are derived from adjectival/PC roots, and whether or not they form a Stative.

Out of the 1433 adjectives, 838 adjectives are VA (182 derived from PC roots), 9 adjectives are very likely VA but feature uncharacteristic peculiarities such as vowel differences, 70 adjectives could not be clearly identified nor rejected as VA, and finally 516 adjectives were not VAs (results summarised in Figure 1 below).

The non-VA adjectives moreover fall into several classes: adjectival participles (i.e., participles that have become lexicalised as adjectives),²¹ *-ī/-ān*-derived adjectives, and loans. In total, 113 adjectives were derived from participles of all template patterns (i.e., SIMPLE, INTENSIVE, CAUSATIVE / ACTIVE, MIDDLE, PASSIVE), 97 adjectives were intensive adjectives, and a total of 149 adjectives were derived concatenatively through the suffixation of *-ī* (102 adjectives), *-ān* (22 adjectives), or the combination of both (25 adjectives). The remaining adjectives were loans (Figure 1).

With regard to which adjectives could derive Statives, the only semantic restriction found related to adjectives denoting ethnicities/geographic origins (e.g., *amurrû* ‘Amorite’, *elamû* ‘Elamite’, etc.). Perhaps owing to the contexts during which they are used being overwhelmingly of archival nature (i.e., inventory lists with items from said places), these adjectives were not found to derive Statives.

All other adjective types derived at least one Stative, as shown in (32). Example (32a) shows a Stative from a participle, (32b) shows the Stative derived from a denominal adjective derived with both *-ān*- and *-ī*-.

²¹Note that “regular” productive (active) participles like ‘seer’, ‘eater’, ‘giver’, have been excluded from this study. The participles that have lexicalised as adjectives have usually taken on meanings more akin to ‘seeing’, ‘eating’, ‘giving’. Not all verbs derive participles of this type.

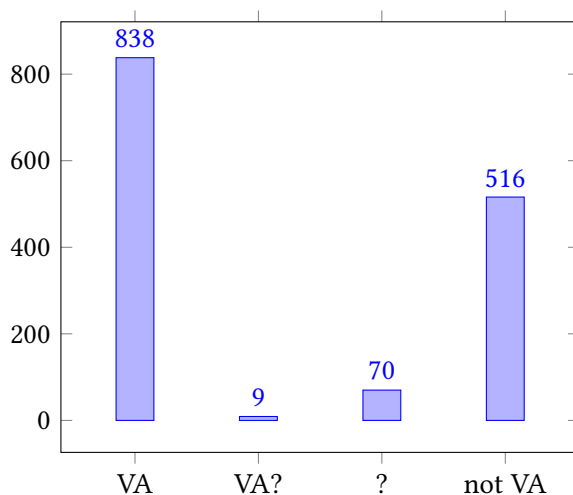


Figure 1: Distribution of VA among the total of 1433 adjectives

(32) More secondary Stative examples

- a. *šumma liqpî=šu šābul*
if palate=his.SG.M CAUS.dry.PTCP.STAT.3SG.M
'If his palate is dry (and covered with a deposit) ...' (Labat TDP 64:54)
- b. *šumma imitt-a tirk-u lumnāni*
if right-OBL dark.spot-NOM evilly.inclined.STAT.3SG.M
'If there is a black spot on the right, he is prone to misfortune.' (CT 28 29:14)

As initially expected in Section 4.2 above, the vast majority of Statives appears in conditional *šumma*-contexts. Further, the majority of Statives appears in the 3SG.M form, i.e., they do not feature any Stative-suffixes. As they also lack case-marking, I exclude the possibility of predicatively used “regular” adjectives.

The attestation of (adjectival) secondary Statives is incredibly rare vis-à-vis the attestation of primary Statives. As Kraus (1984) also noted in his study of the old Babylonian letters corpus (*altbabylonische Briefe*), out of 1200 Statives attested in the selected volumes investigated, only 20 Statives were formed of nominal or adjectival stems, i.e., of secondary Statives. In my present study, comprising the attestations provided by the *Chicago Assyrian Dictionary*, less than forty adjectives were found to certainly derive Stative forms.

From this statistical observation, I infer that the inheritance of a CoS event from the ROOT is a necessity for Stative formation. Drawing a CoS from a pragmatic/modal context appears to have been more costly, and thus so rarely observed. This necessity to inherit eventive information from a ROOT could also be argued to serve as further evidence for both the verbal, but particularly the resultative nature of the state described by the Stative. We may now revise the schema in Table 9 for the last time.

Table 9: Basic morphological Stative categorisation (final revision)

Primary Statives				Secondary Statives	
<i>XaY(i)Z-</i> + suffix				Stem + suffix	
Verbal ROOT		Adj. ROOT		Adj. stem	Nom. stem
Unerg.	Unacc.	Agent.-tr.	Exp.		
No Stat.	Root-inherited CoS			External CoS event	

I leave the question of diachrony open at this point, hypothesising that the resultative/Stative attaching to adjectival or nominal stems potentially derived from parallel contexts of primary Statives and adjectival/nominal stems in modal constructions, particularly in omens and medical texts. Given the scope of the present paper, this shall remain an endeavour for future studies to embark on.

5 Conclusion

This paper's goals were twofold: First, it set out to argue against the synchronic interpretation of all Statives as deadjectival verbs by presenting the allosemantic Experiencer-subject alternation in primary Statives. This alternation could be accounted for by assuming that different functional heads, namely *a* and *v*, set different *s*-selectional requirements for the syntax to filter out the arguments necessary for their derivation. Ultimately, it shows that primary Statives are not syntactically deadjectival.

Secondly, this paper sought to motivate the Stative's function as a resultative state through cross-linguistic parallels of resultative constructions. I argued that the referenced CoS event is implicitly encoded in the ROOT of primary Statives. The deadjectival secondary Statives, which lack eventive encoding, must draw their CoS context from external syntactic or semantic/pragmatic sources, most

commonly from modal particles/complementisers. The Stative requiring access to eventive encoding could serve as further evidence for its resultative function as well as an explanation for the scarcity of secondary Statives.

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Abbreviations

ACC	accusative	MOD	modal
CAUS	causative	N	<i>N-Stamm</i> / PASSIVE pattern
COM	common gender	NEG	negation
CONJ	conjunction	NOM	nominative
CoS	change of state	OBL	oblique
CSTR	construct state	PC	property concept
D	<i>Dopplungstamm</i> / INTENSIVE pattern	PFV	perfective
DAT	dative	PN	personal name
DOR	direct-object restriction	PTCP	participle
F(EM)	feminine	PL	plural
G	<i>Grundstamm</i> / SIMPLE pattern	RN	regnal name
GEN	genitive	Š	<i>Š-Stamm</i> / CAUSATIVE pattern
IPFV	imperfective	SG	singular
IPP	independent personal pronouns	STAT	Stative
M(ASC)	masculine	TAM	tense/aspect/mood
		VA	verbal adjective

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